Journal of Pragmatics 187 (2022) 24–40

Contents lists available at ScienceDirect

Journal of Pragmatics

journal homepage: www.elsevier.com/locate/pragma

Metadiscourse in online advertising: Exploring linguistic and visual metadiscourse in social media advertisements

Aisha Saadi Al-Subhi

Umm Al-Qura University, Saudi Arabia

ARTICLE INFO

Article history:
Received 8 March 2021
Received in revised form 17 October 2021
Accepted 27 October 2021
Available online 19 November 2021

Keywords:
Metadiscourse
Visual metadiscourse
Advertising discourse
Writer-reader interaction
Persuasion

ABSTRACT

Advertising is a powerful means of flowing information from sellers to buyers and it highly influences and smartly persuades people to do actions. This paper investigates the frequency and the use of the linguistic and the visual metadiscourse markers in SM advertisements, in addition to the role they play in the construction of persuasion. A corpus of 50 advertisements was extracted from three SM platforms: Instagram, Snapchat and Twitter, and both frequency-based and qualitative methods were integrated in the analysis. Drawing on Hyland's (2005a, 2005b) models of metadiscourse and Kumpf's visual metadiscourse (2000), the study compared the use of these two distinct types of metadiscourse, and explained how visual metadiscourse complements linguistic metadiscourse in constructing persuasive messages and enticing customers into buying products. Results revealed that all categories of visual metadiscourse, especially chunking, convention, and consistency, were highly evident in the data investigated. Results also showed that engagement markers and directives exhibited higher frequencies than other linguistic metadiscourse and they were employed as effective techniques of persuasive language. The study concluded that metadiscourse, both visually and linguistically, plays a vital role in structuring the discourse, engaging the audience, and catching the consumers' interest, thus becoming an integral aspect of persuasive writing.

© 2021 Elsevier B.V. All rights reserved.

1. Metadiscourse and online advertising discourse

The concept of metadiscourse provides a framework for analyzing discourse as a form of social engagement. "It represents the writer's awareness of the unfolding text as *discourse:* how we situate ourselves and our readers in a text to create convincing, coherent prose in particular social contexts" (Hyland, 2005a, p. 10). Metadiscourse has been and is still an attractive concept that has caught the attention of numerous researchers from different research disciplines especially in research about language. It is commonly defined as discourse about discourse or communication about communication (Vande Kopple, 1985). Hyland (2013), defined metadiscourse as "the cover term for the self-reflective expressions used to negotiate interactional meanings in a text, assisting the writer (or speaker) to express a viewpoint and engage with readers as members of a particular community" (p. 56).

Metadiscourse has been a major area of investigations since the 1980s with pioneering work of Crismore (1982,1989), and Vande Kopple (1985) in the field. Recently, there has been a widespread interest in analyzing metadiscourse in various avenues of discourse with many emerging research and genre analysis studies. Most of the published metadiscourse research involves scientific, academic, or professional writing. Among these are Mauranen (1993), Valero-Garcés (1996), Hyland and Tse (2004), and Ädel (2008). A number of studies have also used the framework of metadiscourse to investigate interactions in

E-mail address: assubhi@uqu.edu.sa.

https://doi.org/10.1016/j.pragma.2021.10.027
0378-2166/© 2021 Elsevier B.V. All rights reserved.

media discourse (Le, 2004; Dafouz-Milne, 2008; Noorian and Biria, 2010; and Kuhi and Mojood, 2014). In addition, other research has explored the role of metadiscourse in the construction of persuasion in different contexts such as Charney and Longo (1994), Crismore (2004), and Povolná (2020). However, there is a paucity of metadiscourse literature on advertising. Only a few studies have tackled metadiscourse on advertising language (Fuertes-Olivera et al., 2001) and Gustafsson (2018).

As a matter of fact, the study of advertisements should investigate the use of linguistic devices and of course other visual elements, which play an essential role in constructing the meaning of the ad. As meaning is created "by the way the language interacts with the visual elements" (Ledin and Machin, 2020, p. 6). It is broadly acknowledged that images can convey meaning just like texts do, and "a picture tells a thousand words". The idea of using visuals as means of communication has been widely researched in the fields of semiotics and multimodal discourse analysis. Visual communication and the concept of multimodality have been investigated by Kress and Van Leeuwen (1996, 2006) and Kress (2010). Kress and Van Leeuwen (1996, 2006) provided a systematic and comprehensive taxonomy for analyzing visuals based on related systems and different functions. An interesting work of visual metadiscourse, which applied this taxonomy, has been carried out by D'Angelo (2016). She examined the use of textual interactive and interactional metadiscourse resources and visual interactive resources in academic posters across three disciplines and the study reported that visual interactive resources play a fundamental role in poster design, because they help readers understand content and manage the flow of information. Other few studies addressed the interaction between textual and visual elements of a text (e.g. Miller, 1998; Myers, 2000). However, the literature on visual metadiscourse is still scarce; the analysis of how various non-verbal elements (visual metadiscourse as coined by Kumpf, 2000) interact with text on advertising discourse has not received adequate attention from scholars. Kumpf (2000) emphasized the authorial influence that exists beyond the written texts and showed how visual metadiscourse can successfully constitute the text. He argued that "we must inquire how metadiscourse affects the visual decisions and subsequent visual control writers exert on their documents" (p. 402). He proposed a visual taxonomy of ten categories, based on textual metadiscourse, which expresses metadiscourse at the visual level, and supports readability and macrostructural consistency (For detailed explanation of these categories, see models of analysis and visual metadiscourse). These ten visual dimensions contribute to provide a general sense of coherent and coherence structure which in turn reinforces the discourse's structure (Mancini, 2005).

The current study tries to broaden the scope of analysis by examining both linguistic and visual metadiscourse on advertising genre and show how they are used in SM ads to foreground certain strategies. These prevailing strategies of online advertising play a vital role in engaging the potential consumers, leading them to the desired behaviour, thus creating a successful persuasive communication between advertisers and consumers.

1.1. Online advertising discourse

Advertisements as discourse is recognized as paid, nonpersonal communication forms used by identified sources through various media with persuasive intent (Van Dijk, 1985). Cook (1996), views advertising as a distinctive form of discourse in which there is always a complex interaction between text, context, music, pictures, and the people who make and experience them. Advertising is a unique form of cultural and social discourse that undoubtedly has the power of influencing audiences by using various creative and persuasive methods. It represents a "privileged form of discourse" in which we accord what it says a place of special prominence in our modern lives (Leiss et al., 1999, p. 1). It is not a remote and specialized discourse, but a prominent discourse type in contemporary society (Cook, 1996, p. 199). Leech (1969) argues that most of advertising language "comes under the broader heading of 'loaded language'; that is, it aims to change the will, opinions, or attitudes of its audience" (p. 25).

Online advertising involves the use of the Internet to deliver marketing messages to the potential customers. It is "an Internet-based process by which advertisers communicate, interact with, and persuade online users in order to position a brand, which allows a company to promote both consumer awareness and preference in a customized and personalized way, and decrease the time needed to make a buying decision" (Hanafizadeh and Behboudi, 2012, p. 22). Janoschka (2004), confirms that online advertising differs from traditional discourse in establishing new linguistic means and strategies of persuasive advertising, adopting the new forms of communication on the Internet. According to Bedijs and Maaß (2017), online advertising possesses features that distinguish it from advertising in legacy mass media. For instance, online advertising is interactive, more communicative, has potential for personalization and has a hypertext design.

Advertising language has been an area of active research and enormous rich literature has been produced around it (Leech, 1969; Geis, 1982; Vestergaard and Schrodder, 1985; Cook, 1996; Stren, 1996; and Yingfang, 2007). However, the discourse of advertising offers a fertile area for research and investigation as it is constantly changing and adapting with new domains. According to Hyland (2005a), one of the clearest examples of the rhetorical role of metadiscourse is found in advertisements. Fuertes-Olivera et al. (2001), for instance, show that metadiscourse is extensively used in advertising slogans and headlines "to convey a persuasive message under an informative mask" (p. 1305). In the genre of magazine advertising, metadiscourse assists copywriters in creating solidarity with readers to secure rhetorical, and ultimately commercial, objectives (Hyland, 2005a, p. 72).

2. Method

2.1. Corpus

The present data consist of 50 online advertisements totaling about 601 tokens. All the advertisements were randomly selected and retrieved online from three SM platforms: Instagram, Snapchat and Twitter, published recently between 2018

and 2019. These three leading platforms were chosen for their massive popularity and their high engagement rate with more than 1 billion active users and this probably guarantees the authenticity and the validity of the data. The majority of the ads were selected from the official SM accounts of global cosmetic companies and beauty brands. All the selected ads were commercial ones. Commercial advertising is a form of marketing communication that employs paid promotional messages that are used to make a product or a service known and persuade people to buy it. In addition to being commercial, the selected advertisements belong to display advertising type. This type shows or displays images, videos, or animation embedded in or pop up from the web page that the user is browsing. This is one of the oldest types of online advertising but it still holds the largest share of online market nowadays (Hua et al., 2011, p. 265).

2.2. Procedure and analysis

This study seeks to demonstrate the importance of metadiscourse in the genre of online advertising. It provides a detailed analysis of the different metadiscursive textual and visual devices used in SM advertising. The collected data has been subjected to qualitative analysis, which was carried out manually to ensure its validity. The analysis was conducted in two stages, the first one examining the use of linguistic metadiscourse, and the second looking at categories of visual metadiscourse.

In the first stage, all devices of linguistic metadiscourse were identified in context and classified into subcategories drawing on Hyland's two models of metadiscourse (2005a, 2005b). Afterwards, the results were tallied in a table and frequencies of metadiscourse markers were calculated. Hyland's metadiscourse taxonomies provide theoretical frameworks that concern the writer's references to the writer, the reader, and the text. Hyland's models refer to a diverse array of interactive and interactional resources used to manage textual interactions. In what follows, these models will be explained fully and examples from the corpus are provided. This linguistic analysis of textual metadiscourse was based on calculating the occurrences of metadiscourse markers and all frequencies reported have been normalized to occurrences per 1000 words to enable a more accurate comparison of the data.

In the second stage, the analysis of visual metadiscourse was conducted based on Kumpf's model (2000). Visual metadiscourse "complements textual metadiscourse in emphasizing the necessity of rhetoric in technical communication" and writers need to consider these visual features as they also "constitute the text" (Kumpf, 2000, p. 401–404). Kumpf's (2000), ten categories of visual metadiscourse: *first impression*, *heft*, *convention*, *chunking*, *external skeleton*, *consistency*, *expense*, *attraction*, *interpretation* and *style* were examined and analyzed qualitatively in each individual ad of the data. These visuals do not only supplement verbal language but they actively construe meanings and interact with the text and the reader (Kress and Leeuwen, 1996).

In brief, this study examined and compared the use of linguistic and visual metadiscourse in SM advertising using frequency-based and qualitative analyses that are based solely on manual searches. These analyses were integrated to achieve the overarching concern of the study, which is to provide a detailed description of the distributional patterns of linguistic and visual metadiscourse in SM advertising discourse and the role they play in the construction of persuasion.

3. Models of analysis

3.1. Hyland's models of metadiscourse (2005a, 2005b)

Hyland's model (2005a) recognizes that metadiscourse is comprised of two dimensions of interaction:

3.1.1. The interactive dimension

This allows the writer to manage the information flow and reflects his/her awareness of the readership. The writer's purpose is to shape and constrain the text to meet the needs of a particular reader and at the same time guide him/her through the text (Hyland, 2005a). This category includes ***Transitions,*** which are mainly conjunctions and adverbial phrases used to signal additive, causative and contrastive relations in the writer's thinking; ***Frame markers,*** which are references to text boundaries or elements of schematic text structure used to sequence, label stages, announce discourse goals and indicate topic shifts; ***Endophoric markers,*** which are expressions which refer to other parts of the text; and ***Evidentials,*** which refer to information from other texts; and ***Code glosses,*** which supply additional information by rephrasing, explaining or elaborating what has already been said (Hyland, 2005a).

3.1.2. The interactional dimension

This concerns the ways writers conduct interaction by introducing and commenting on their message. The writer's aim is to make his/her views explicit and to involve readers by allowing them to respond to the unfolding text. Again there are five sub-categories (Hyland, 2005a): ***Hedges,*** which are devices which indicate the writer's decision to recognize alternative voices and viewpoints and so withhold complete commitment to a proposition; ***Boosters,*** which allow writers to close down alternatives, head-off conflicting views and express their certainty in what they say; ***Attitude markers,*** which indicate the writer's affective, rather than epistemic, attitude to propositions; ***Self mentions,*** which refer to the degree of explicit author presence in the text measured by the frequency of first-person pronouns and possessive adjectives; and ***Engagement markers***, which explicitly address readers, either to focus their attention or include them as discourse participants.

Hyland (2005b) posits a model of interaction in academic discourse that reconsiders interactional metadiscourse in terms of the expression of speaker ***stance*** and ***engagement*** with the audience. According to Hyland (2005b, p. 5), ***Stance*** can be seen as "an attitudinal dimension and includes features which refer to the ways writers present themselves and convey their judgements, opinions, and commitments". Whereas ***Engagement*** is "an alignment dimension where writers acknowledge and connect to others, recognizing the presence of their readers, pulling them along with their argument, focusing their attention, acknowledging their uncertainties, including them as discourse participants, and guiding them to interpretations". The key resources of interactional metadiscourse are shown in Fig. 1 and more details about its features are given in the findings section.

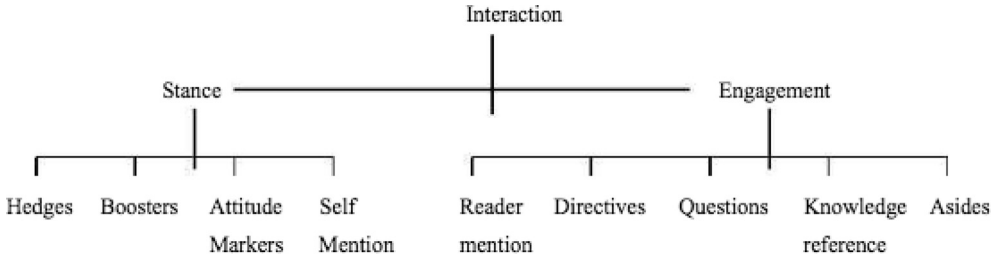


Fig. 1. Hyland's model of interactional metadiscourse.

3.2. Kumpf's model of visual metadiscourse (2000)

Kumpf (2000) has expanded the concept of metadiscourse to the visual realm. Visual metadiscourse refers to those elements authors have to bear in mind to meet the visual needs of readers. According to Kumpf (2000, p. 401), "authors have many necessary design considerations as they attempt to help readers navigate through and understand documents". Kumpf (2000) classified visual metadiscourse into ten categories: first impression, heft, convention, chunking, external skeleton, consistency, expense, attraction, interpretation and style (each one of these categories will be explained fully in the findings section). These categories of visual metadiscourse can apply to hardcopy documents as well as to those online. Many of these categories are inherent in a document and can exert varying degrees of persuasion, "to the point where the presence and the intelligent use of the visual category pleases and entices the reader" (Kumpf, 2000, p. 419). These visual categories aim at expressing metadiscourse of text through its graphical features (Mancini, 2005). They also "describe areas of authorial choice in the documents, choices that reveal information about the authors, as the language they are using is also using them" (Kumpf, 2000, p. 405). In addition, these visual elements serve memory functions by allowing the audience to develop connections between each element (Bowen and Whithaus, 2013).

4. Findings

4.1. Linguistic metadiscourse

4.1.1. Interactive resources

The data show that there is minimum occurrence of categories of interactive resources of metadiscourse due to the genre conventions and the short texts of advertising discourse. Out of the five categories of interactive metadiscourse, only *transitions* display minimal use and the results from all other categories were zero. There are 15 transitions used in the selected ads. Below are some examples:

(1). Elegant ***and*** Sensual. Bold ***and*** Contemporary.
(2). We've all argued with the one we love ***but*** when we lighten the mood. Who will make you happy today?

4.1.2. Interactional resources

Data show that interactional metadiscourse is more likely to occur in SM advertisement than interactive metadiscourse. There are a lot of occurrences of interactional metadiscourse especially *attitude markers* and *engagement markers*. Table 1 shows the details. Remarkably, *attitude markers* and *engagement markers* display the highest frequency of occurrence and this indicates that the main concern of the advertisers is the consumer as these features are an effective means of persuasion. The following sections will present the results in more details.

Table 1
Frequencies of Metadiscourse Resources in SM Advertisements.

Interactional resources	Raw occurrences	*F Per 1000 Words*	Percentage
Stance	**141**	234.60	**70.14%**
Hedges	6	9.98	4%
Boosters	15	24.95	10.63%
Self-mentions	24	39.93	17%
Attitude markers	96	159.73	68%
Engagement	**60**	100	**29.85%**
Reader Pronouns	20	33.27	33%
Personal Asides	0	0	0%
Questions	4	6.65	6.66%
Directives	36	60	60%
Total	**201**	**334.44**	**33%**

4.1.2.1. Stance markers. ***Hedges in SM Ads.*** Hedges have a relatively rare occurrence in the ads. This finding is quite expected since those markers indicate probable, rather than absolute, truth of a claim. Hedges are considered to be a sign of powerless language. Generally, powerless language is marked by frequent use of both non-verbal and verbal hesitations, tag questions, intensifiers, and hedges and results in negative speakers attributions and evaluations specifically in regards to speaker credibility, intelligence and status (Bradac and Mulac, 1984). Most of the hedges in the ads are realized by modal auxiliaries and are used to tone down the message by lowering the force of the preposition. Here are some examples:

(1). First man. Very few *can be* the first to do something…….. Very few *can be* part of something. That changed the world forever…, (Omega Speedmaster).
(2). Taking naps makes you smarter why more ZZZs *could* help with your IQ. (Sleep High)

Boosters in SM Ads. Boosters do not occur very often in the ads. However, they are used more than hedges. They imply certainty and emphasize the force of the proposition. Here are some examples:

(1). *Believe* it done. *Just* do it. (Nike)
(2). I *always* wanted more….. (Swarovski #Remix the rules).

Self-mentions in SM Ads. Self-mentions are also used in the ads but they do not enjoy a high frequency of occurrence. Data show that self-mentions are realized by the use of first person pronoun in singular and plural forms. *I* is employed to refer to a certain product and *we* is used to indicate the advertising company (see the examples below). The first person plural pronoun is used more than the singular form and it is an effective discourse strategy in recent advertising to portray traders and manufactures as a team (Mühlhäusler and Harré, 1990).

1. *We* love coco. *We* love colour. *We* love creativity. (Chanel Beauty)
2. *My* name is. Inspired by Mademoiselle's first hand cream from 1927, *I* come from Gabrielle's hands straight to you. Shaped like a pebble *I* will be in the palm of your hand. Squeeze *me* for a dollop of hydrating delight. *I* promise *I* won't slip through your hands with my light-as-air texture. *I am* LA CRÈME MAIN. (CHANEL)

Attitude Markers in SM Ads. Attitude markers demonstrate remarkable results. They are the most commonly used category (159 *per 1000 words*). As illustrated in the previous table, there are 96 tokens of adjectives serving as attitude markers and contributing successfully to the theme of the ad. It is worth mentioning that attitude markers are realized by various forms such as *comparatives*, *subordinations*, and *progressive particles*. But they are most explicitly signalled meta-discoursally by adjectives (*appropriate, important, logical*), attitude verbs (*agree, prefer*) and sentence adverbs (*unfortunately, hopefully*) (Hyland, 2005a). Results revealed that the most dominant grammatical category used to express attitude towards propositions in SM ads is attitudinal adjectives. Whereas the rest of attitude markers: adverbs, verbs, and nouns were scarce. Adjectives are counted as interactional metadiscourse if they are used to contribute to the theme of the text (Fu, 2012, p. 407). For example, adjectives such as *new, great*, *ultimate, perfect*, and *big* that are used to describe the different products in the ads are instances of attitude markers since the advertisers use these items to stress the qualities of the advertised products and the message of the text. Below are some examples from the data:

(1). New absolute ultimate regeneration power for a visibly transformed skin. (Lancôme)
(2). Impeccable, Dashing, provocative. Sleek as silver, fougere, D'Argent is a legend redux. (TOMFORD)

4.1.2.2. Engagement markers. Engagement markers are linguistic devices used to “explicitly address readers, either to focus their attention or include them as discourse participants”; that is to say, by utilising them, writers can “either highlight or downplay the presence of their readers in the text” (Hyland, 2005a, p. 53). According to Hyland (2005a), there are four main types of engagement markers:

A. ***Reader pronouns*****:** are the most explicit way that readers are brought into a discourse. The reader pronouns include "you, your, we, our, us" and are employed to produce a sense of solidarity with the targeted customers.
B. ***Personal asides:*** briefly interrupt the argument to offer a comment on what has been said.

C. ***Questions:*** are key strategies of dialogic involvement, inviting engagement and bringing the interlocutor into an arena where they can be led to the writer's viewpoint (Hyland, 2002b).
D. ***Directives:*** instruct the reader to perform an action or to see things in a way determined by the writer. They are signalled mainly by imperatives, modals of obligation, and predicative adjectives expressing judgements of necessity/importance (Hyland, 2002a).

Engagement Markers in SM Ads. Engagement markers are commonly used in SM ads. Results show that engaging features display high frequency with 60 tokens (100 *per 1000 words*). The high frequency of engagement markers stresses the importance of interactionality and establishing an explicit relationship with the readers. Data showed that directives (36 *per 1000 words*) were by far the most frequent devices of engagement markers, followed by reader-inclusive pronouns (33 *per 1000 words*) and questions (6 *per 1000 words*).

Reader-inclusive Pronouns. Include second person pronouns, *you - your - yourself*, which address reader directly and the first person pronoun inclusive-*we*. Results show that the pronoun *you* with 17 tokens occurs the most frequently. In contrast, the first person pronoun inclusive-*we* occurs rarely. The frequent use of second person pronouns is an explicit means of appealing to an audience, which personalizes the discourse, and more closely involves readers by directly addressing them (Hyland, 2005a). Personalization creates meaningful, real-time personal interactions between interactants in discourse (Fairclough, 1993). Personalization and reader-orientation in the text is a common feature of advertising discourse which is achieved through the overt use of *you.* Below are some examples:

(1). ***You*** know me and ***you*** don't. (Chanel)
(2). Do it when ***you*** get a job. Redo it when ***you*** get a promotion. (Home Box)

Directives. Directives were the most frequent engagement feature, which occur recurrently in the data. Data show that directives were widely employed to instruct the targeted audience to perform certain actions arranged by the advertisers. Among the common used directives are *do, start, get, shop,* and *save.* These directives are used to simulate consumers to perform immediate actions. It is worth mentioning that most directives were imperative and physical ones achieving a persuasive effect and directing consumers to do actions in the real world as the following examples illustrate:

(1). **Stop. Shop. Save. Enjoy** low prices on furniture, décor, and home essentials. (Home Box)
(2). **Splash** it. **Punch** it. **Tag** it. **Engrave** it. **Mix** it. (Tiffany & CO)

Questions. Employing questions is another engagement feature functioning directly to build relationship between the writer and the reader. Data show that questions were less frequently used in SM ads. The total occurrences of questions are 4 (6 *per 1000 words*). Most of these questions were simple ones requiring no answer. Despite their limited occurrence, questions were employed to arouse the consumer interest and encourage him/her to explore the advertised products. Most of these questions were rhetorical ones requiring a decision or an action from the addressee rather than a verbal answer (Janoschka, 2004). Questions achieved a persuasive effect in the ads as the following examples show:

(1). Black opium. *Are you ready to feel the call?* (Yves Saint Laurent)
(2). We've all argued with the one we love but when we lighten the mood.
Who will you make happy today? (La Vie est belle. Lancôme)

4.2. Visual metadiscourse

4.2.1. First impression

The first category of visual metadiscourse *first impression* refers to the expectations that readers look forward to find in a document. The first impression of a document influences its reception before the reader reads the first word (Kumpf, 2000). It is the first encounter with an ad where the visual cues evoke an immediate response of readers. This is the reason why a good first impression is an important requirement in ads since this will not only decide if the reader will go on to analyze the ad even deeper but it also evokes the positive or negative attitude with which the entire document will be looked at later on. For example, in Yves Saint Laurent ad of Top Secrets CC Cream (refer to Fig. 2), the consumer is first encounter with a focused image



Fig. 2. Yves Saint Laurent Ad of top secrets CC cream.

of the brand logo in shiny gold and black; this initial encounter evokes a strong immediate response from the consumer urging him/her to know more about the product. The product detailed information is revealed in the next image where the reader's expectations are met. It is a colour correcting crème available in apricot colour. Another visual clue is the black frame of the repetitive hashtag of YSL beauty (#YSLBEAUTY) which reinforces the pampering experience and the beauty one's get as a result of using this cream.

4.2.2. Heft

Heft is very related to the feature of *first impression*, and it refers to the bulk or the length of a document and it applies to hardcopy documents as well as to those online (Kumpf, 2000). Results revealed that there are three main types of SM ads: photos, carousels, and video clips. More specifically, images were cleverly combined with texts in 23 photo ads; a series of images with integrated texts were presented in 13 carousel ads; and 14 video clips with enticing texts that last from 15 s up to 1 min were effectively used. The heft of the data under investigation is largely comprised of connecting sentences calling to an action and directing consumers for what they have to do. These sentences range from a single one to a maximum of six sentences. For instance, in a creative effective ad Adidas company urges its customers to avoid companies which are copying their shoe models: **Fake hurts real. Imitations are poorly made, giving you no protection**. The ad reinforces the injury that any one would get from buying fake footwear (see Fig. 3). Other ads display appropriate heft consisting of catchy words and parallel structures. For example, the ad of Bulgari's Serpenti bracelet watches is designed with a text full of loaded adjectives that describe this luxurious handcrafted jewelry: **Elegant and Sensual, Bold and Contemporary. The new #Serpenti watches are a permanent revolution** (see Fig. 4). So it is possible to say that the heft of SM ads consists of words, phrases, and sentences. It cannot be by any means a paragraph or a longer document; otherwise, it will be inappropriately hefty and accordingly targeted readers are not going to read that.



Fig. 3. Adidas Ad.



Fig. 4. Bulgari Ad.

4.2.3. Convention

Convention is another category of visual metadiscourse and it refers to what the reader expect from the appearance of a certain document. Convention consists of expectations based on what we have seen before in a document and how they are grouped into genres (Kumpf, 2000). In simple words, convention consists of design features and formatting style by which we can categories a document or a text within its specific genre. Convention "describes what readers expect from the appearance of a document in relation to what they actually have before their eyes, which influences their perception of it" (Mancini, 2005, p. 97). According to Kostelnick and Roberts (1998), when you design a document, you read it visually and then you tab it into a variety of conventions that govern its language. (p. 34). For example, we expect a business letter to be written in Times New Roman, size 12, single-space, left justified and to include the address, the date, the salutation and must end with a complimentary closing. Similarly, a college student paper will also appear in the MLA format for research papers: double-spaced, single-column, bold headings, and one-sided printing (Kumpf, 2000). The same is true regarding the use of conventions in advertisements. Any reader can identify a document as an ad as a result of using verbal and visual conventions. These conventions include images, colour, font, language, and integration of text and images.

Data showed that the convention of most SM advertisements reflects professional work where most of the genre conventions are employed. Some of these include: *interesting headings and catchy sentences*, *brand logo*, *slogan, colour scheme*, *limited use of words*, and *graphics* (Goddard, 2002). According to Janoschka (2004), online advertising is a type of mass communication that makes use of a lot of linguistic means such as the use of questions, imperatives, personal pronouns, abbreviated sentences and emotional appeal and these are supported by the use of images and graphics. Results of the analysis revealed that the standards and the conventions of ads were followed in most of the advertisements. For example, Figs. 5 and 6 from the data display many conventions of advertising genre:

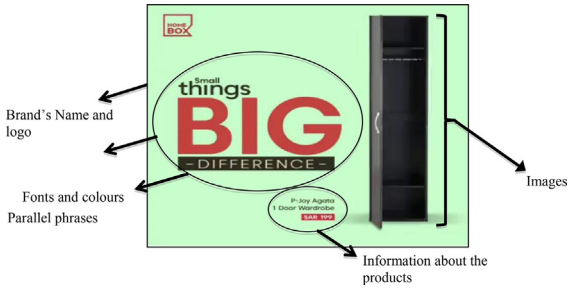


Fig. 5. Conventions in SM advertisements (HomeBox Stores for Furniture Ad).



Fig. 6. Conventions in SM advertisements (HomeBox Stores for Furniture Ad).

4.2.4. Chunking

The term refers to the arrangement of text into discrete visual parts in order to "help readers identify the constituent parts of a document and to show the boundaries of related items" (Kumpf, 2000, p. 409). Chunking in data under investigation was effectively employed as visual device in almost half of the ads, 25 ads were chunked skillfully to create meaningful, visually distinct units that influence consumers and attract their attention to the advertised product, as the following examples display:

(1). Van Cleef & Arpels creates an efficacious ad in which 6 chucks were presented in a short video clip, six short parallel phrases (*creating the motif, cutting the stones, setting the stones, designing the piece, polishing the piece*, and *assembling the gold chain*) tell the story of fine crafting of jewelry (see Fig. 7):

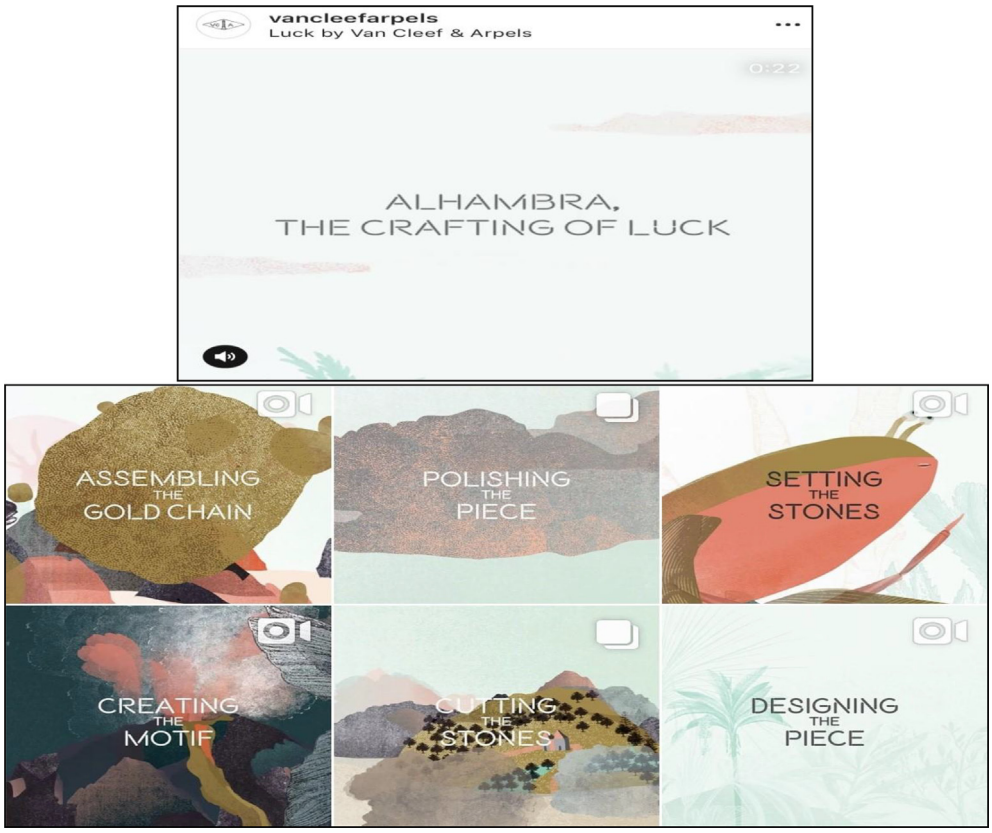


Fig. 7. Van Cleef & Arpels Ad.

(2). Another example is manifested in Lancôme new perfume 'La Vie est belle' ad in which the content is divided into four chunks displaying sentences, and a question (*We have all argued with the one we love, But when we lighten the mood, La Vie est belle, Who will you make happy today, La Vie est belle*) (see Fig. 8):



Fig. 8. Lancôme Ad.

Chunking can be considered as the most conventional format for SM advertising in which targeted audience can run their eyes across the chunked parts of an ad and still get the gist. It is essential in advertising for it presents the content that SM users can comprehend and remember clearly especially they scan these ads online where they can get distracted quite easily.

4.2.5. External skeleton

The external skeleton refers to the organization of a document. It shows how a document is assembled and in the case of an ad, it would be, for instance, the placement of the heading or the core message versus the location of the surrounding information. It may include the headings, subheadings, page numbers, and other visual cues that show readers how the document is convened. According to Kumpf (2000), "the external skeleton relies much on chunking because the visual separation caused by chunking helps identify the parts of the skeleton" (p. 411). In addition, the complexity of external skeleton depends largely upon the genre of the document. For example, an essay requires a completely different skeleton from an ad. An essay may need paragraphs, introduction, conclusion, and a title. On the other hand, the genre of advertising doesn't essentially need a complex skeleton due to the relatively short nature of ads. The major features of online social

advertisements' external skeleton are the name of the brand or the company, the core message, additional information, and repetition of the name of the brand or the company. This pattern was followed in most of the ads especially in video and carousel ones.

Figs. 9 and 10 give examples of social media ads in which the external skeleton is explicit assisting the targeted consumers in orienting themselves with the product. Speaking graphologically, the brand name is written in bold and uppercase letters using contrastive colours. After the ad finishes the brand name is repeated to mark the end and to reinforce the name in the consumer's mind. Other graphological elements include short, readable chunks of texts written beneath 'the brand name' in smaller font and lowercase letters presenting the core messages.



Fig. 9. Bulgari Ad.

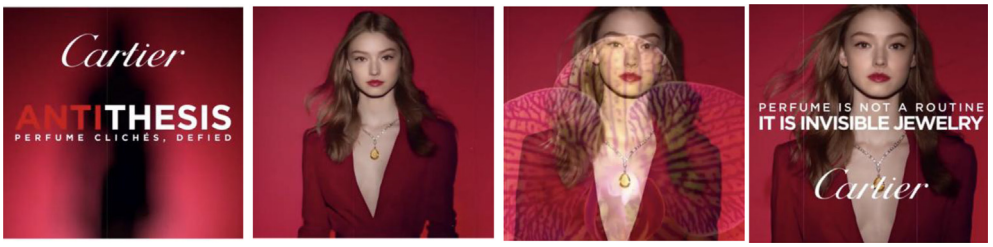


Fig. 10. Cartier Ad.

4.2.6. Consistency

Consistency is another visual metadiscourse feature referring to unity in a document that maintains a consistent style or tone. It "concerns the constancy of style that provides the reader with a stable visual reference against which to organize and view the information provided by the text" (Mancini, 2005, p. 97). Consistency, continuity and relation all describe the visual coherence of a document, a coherence that satisfies the consumer's appeal for order and unity (Kumpf, 2000). Visual consistency was clearly manifested in SM advertisements in the use of similar or the same font throughout the ad, the use of the same colours, the use of parallel structures, the size of images, and in maintaining a hierarchy between headings or information. For example, in HomeCentre ad (see Fig. 11) the consistency is revealed through the use of parallel structure of two

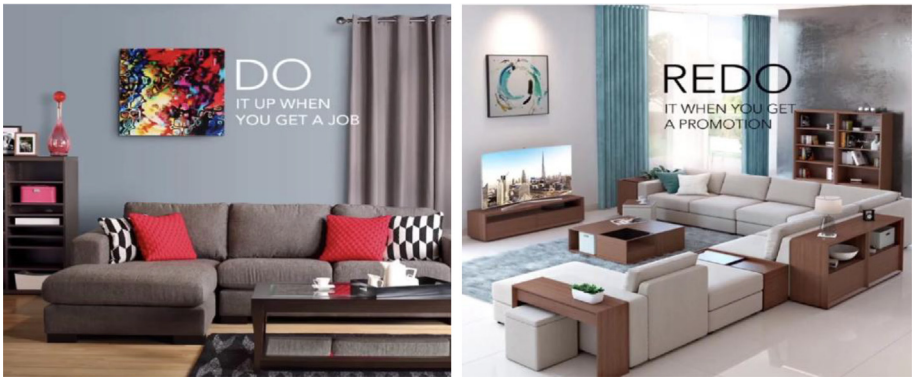


Fig. 11. HomeCentre Ad.

almost identical independent clauses in which the same font and size of writing are also used: **Do it up when you get a job, Redo it when you get a promotion**. Similarly, in Chanel Beauty ad consistency is achieved through the use of exact colour, exact font, and exact motion on the same background using consistent structure and identical construction: **We love creativity, We love colour, We love coco** (Fig. 12). This analogy of visual consistency helps consumers to discern cohesion interpreting the ad as one unified whole whose parts support one product: the red lipstick.



Fig. 12. Chanel beauty Ad.

4.2.7. Expense

According to Kumpf (2000), expense is the part of visual metadiscourse most influenced by money; that is, the expense of paper, printing, and visuals, among other things. It concerns the economical and aesthetic aspects of a document, which depend on the context of its use and affect the reader's reception of the document (Mancini, 2005). In fact, SM sites offer many options for advertisers to display their ads, and there are many billing options such as Cost-per-click (CPC), Cost-per-thousand impressions (CPM), Cost-per-view (CPV), Cost per action/conversion (CPA), and Cost per like. For example, CPM varies from as little as $5 to more than $40, depending upon the type or size of the ad and whether behavioral or demographic targeting is used (Tuten, 2008). Therefore, SM channels appear to be excellent avenues for advertisers to reach a variety of consumers and boost their sales at the least possible expense.

4.2.8. Attraction

Attraction concerns the setting and maintaining of a visual standard to capture and keep the attention of the reader through the document to its end. According to Kumpf (2000), attraction is accomplished through the use of other visual metadiscourse categories such as *consistency*, *chunking*, and *the external skeleton*. Attraction is achieved in social media ads through the use of different photographs, different fonts, vivid colours, connected texts, and other visuals. The use of a continuous sequence of images can effectively attract the interest of consumers drawing their attention into the most important part of the ad which is usually placed at the end. For example, in Chanel *la crème main* ad consumers are engaged by texts effects in which the product's information is introduced. This carousel ad employs the *first impression* by beginning with a large bold animated text: **My name is…** to draw consumers further into the ad. Attractions then takes over by the use of desaturate animation style of multiple small font black texts appearing in a consistent sequence (see Fig. 13). Attraction continues and consumers were pulled gently toward the end of the ad where the name of the product is clearly stated.



Fig. 13. Chanel *la crème main* Ad.

4.2.9. Interpretation

The category of interpretation applies to documents containing charts, tables, graphs and photos. It links visuals to the text and helps add cohesion between textual and visual elements (Kumpf, 2000). Interpretation helps combine text and image and furthermore, it allows the text to support visuals in a document. In most of the data analyzed interpretation allows text support images. Both elements work together to create cohesion and lead to a successful interpretation of the ad. For

example, Tiffany ad consists of a serious of commands: *Splash it, Punch it, Engrave it, Tag it* and *Mix it.* Each one of these commands is immediately followed by illustrative images of the intended action required from the customer (see Fig. 14). It is really interesting that the style of text of each command is taking the shape of the action itself.



Fig. 14. Tiffany & Co. Ad.

4.2.10. Style

Style as a category of visual metadiscourse refers to the assumptions readers form when seeing documents and judging them according to conventions (Kumpf, 2000). It refers to the visual form that a text can take in a document, through font, font style, size, colour which embellish the text (Mancini, 2005). "A writer cannot escape style for it will comprise one of the many screens through which readers will interpret and receive the document" (Kumpf, 2000, p. 417).

The style and the art of texts can be fundamental in creating a successful identity for the brand resulting in the success of the ad. The analysis shows that almost all the ads used a variety of styles and a vast array of textual and visual choices to get a message to the consumer and reach effective marketing. These ads are professionally created and attractively formatted. For example, the font used in Versace ad 'Chain Creation' can be illegible for some readers, but such unreadability constitutes a challenging task for consumers leaving them trying their best to figure out the hidden script. This aesthetic script gives a unique style to the ad. In contrast, the brand name 'Versace' is written in capital thick red lines. The typeface used is very clear and easy to read and the font is an excellent choice for displaying the brand name (see Fig. 15). Likewise, Bulgari ad '*Be larger than life*' is another example of how the font and the size of the text were manipulated to motivate customers to enjoy living in grand style and live out every moment to the fullest. These stylistic choices and embellishments carry loaded messages that enhance readers to think how Bulgari style can help them to see the big picture of life and live each day to their fullest potential (Fig. 16).



Fig. 15. Versace ad.

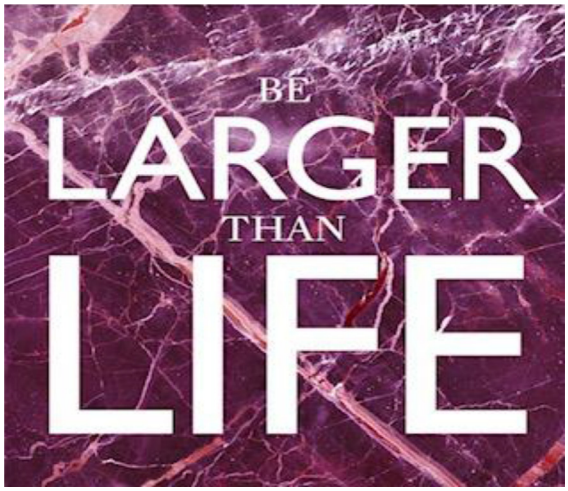


Fig. 16. Bulgari Ad.

5. Discussion

This study investigated the use of various categories of linguistic and visual metadiscourse in the genre of social media ads. It has been found that categories of interactive metadiscourse were totally missing except for a few cases of transitions. This absence is quite expected since the vast majority of SM ads consists of simple sentences, phrases, or just words. The relatively short nature of advertisement messages doesn't obviously require the use of interactive metadiscourse. Due to the genre conventions, there is no need for devices that guide the readers, organize the discourse, and clarify prepositional connections and meanings as the verbal text of the ad is always short, direct, memorable, intriguing and compelling, thus, achieving the effective and the persuasive functions of the ads. This finding corresponds to Gustafsson (2018), in which the researcher reported no use at all of interactive resources in online advertisements of make up brands. On the contrary of the previous result, it has been found that interactional resources of metadiscourse are fairly employed in SM ads. The most prominent of SM ads is the frequent use of attitude and engagement markers. The high frequency of these features is in accordance with the communicative and the persuasive purposes that the ads' designers want to achieve. Most of the attitude markers in the data belong to attitudinal adjectives which are employed professionally in the ads to stress the quality of the advertised products and contribute effectively to the core message of the ad. Attitude markers play a key role in strengthening the persuasiveness of the ads as advertisers cast a positive light on the products through the inclusion of appropriate adjectives. According to Brierley (1995), adjectives are the imagistic elements of the ads which convey mood and emotion, evoke imagery, and add values to the product. The persuasiveness of SM ads is also achieved through the extensive use of engagement markers which are realized by reader pronouns and directives. These engaging devices help to establish an informal and friendly relation between the advertisers and the consumers in the ad. Reader pronouns are the most explicit way that readers are brought into a discourse (Hyland, 2005a). They are employed by the advertisers to address the consumers directly and guide them to perform the desired action. The high frequency of the second-person pronoun *you* creates solidarity between advertisers and consumers, and increases the level of interactionality in the text. Moreover, although these ads address millions of people at once, the pronoun *you* gives the impression that they are addressing an individual personally. This finding is consistent with a previous research (Fuertes-Olivera et al., 2001) which reported that person markers help to personalize potential consumers and motivate them have trust in the goods being advertised.

Directives work hand in hand with reader pronouns and predominate in the data as a result of using imperatives (*eat, shop, do, get, take*) which directly address targeted consumers and persuade them to buy a product or service. Most of the directives used involve activities that mainly operate in the physical dimension. According to Janoschka (2004), an advertising message which employs imperatives clearly gives instructions to the addressed audience. Imperatives belong to the field of direct user addressing and persuasion. More importantly, directives are used to gain solidarity with the reader as the directives in advertising are never negative or onerous, but are designed to appear like suggestions (Young and Fitzgerald, 2006).

Moreover, the study unveiled that all categories of visual metadiscourse were manifested in SM ads. The findings suggest that SM ads are highly visual in nature with the implementation of a wide array of visual elements including images, colors, fonts, size, shape, and patterns. These visuals constitute the main structural component of SM ads that obtain consumers' interest, evoke their emotions and compel them to buy products. According to R. Barthes (1994) practically first of all we read the image, not the text it formed. In fact, SM ads are displayed along with hundreds of posts on SM platforms where targeted consumers can get distracted easily which make reaching those distracted consumers a hard mission. Therefore, advertisers relied heavily on creative visual devices to lure consumers. So once the consumer has been attracted visually, he/she will be convinced to read and continue reading the text and the ad will impact effectively. It is possible to say that advertisers communicate visually a desired message to the potential consumers: that the ad must be read and the product should be relied upon. It is also highly notable that in most of the ads almost all visual categories are employed simultaneously to achieve the desired effect. Starting from first impression and heft to the depiction of external skeleton where consistent and chunked highly readable units attract consumers with a unique style and will-established conventions is a visual pursuit that successfully achieves rhetorical and persuasive effects in advertisements.

Actually, linguistic and visual metadiscourse work together to create meaning and aid the reader in understanding the text. Whereas linguistic metadiscourse helps writers to arrange content and shape their arguments to the needs of their audience, visual metadiscourse was found also to organize the contents, guide users, attract attention and establish direct communication between the reader and the author (Fechine and Pontes, 2012). Visual metadiscourse adds visual cues, reminders, and markers that help readers see cohesion between visual and textual elements (Williams, 1977). Both types of metadiscourse are essential in designing ads and play a fundamental role in creating persuasive messages that aid communication and make the ads comprehensible and accessible to the audience. "Both print and visual metadiscourse have interpersonal functions that have persuasive, rhetorical effects on readers" (Crismore, 2004, p. 313).

As a matter of fact, "advertising industry is the ultimate persuasion business" (Toye, 2013, p. 100) which is basically achieved through using rhetoric. Therefore, advertisers count on rhetorical techniques as the primary goal of advertising is to cause a specified consumer response. In SM ads, many persuasive techniques have been employed such as the use of engagement markers, repetition, emotional appeal, testimonial and iconic figures, and rhetorical questions. These rhetorical devices play a key role in the production of effective messages in SM ads and make ads highly persuasive. Finally, it is a fact that advertising uses persuasion, which is achieved via rhetoric, to communicate directly with targeted consumers and to promote a product or an idea to them.

6. Conclusion

This paper has presented a detailed description of linguistic and visual metadiscourse in SM advertisements. The study reveals that both types of metadiscourse are highly evident in SM ads. It unveiled that there are plenty of interactional metadiscourse resources with higher frequencies of stance and engagement markers. Results also revealed that all categories of visual metadiscourse, especially *chunking, convention, consistency* and *external skeleton*, were highly evident in the data investigated. In fact, advertising is a hybrid communicative process based on both textual and visual elements. Both text and image are equally important and together both contribute effectively to the success of the ad. Advertisers may include visuals to minimize the distance between sender and audience because visuals can make information more concrete and accessible by either supporting the written text in the document or replacing the lengthy written text that would be needed to convey the same message (Gardner and Luchtenberg, 2000). Finally, this study extends the scope of metadiscourse to the visual realm and shows that visual metadiscourse complements linguistic metadiscourse in conveying the author's message, influencing the audience's interpretation and emphasizing the rhetoric of the text. It is a balanced interplay in which the verbal and the visual realm is given an equal role to play.

6.1. Implications and limitations

The present study is a linguistic descriptive research that tried to explore how textual and visual metadiscourse interact in advertising discourse and showed how these metadiscursive features play a key role in the construction of persuasion in this genre. This study added to our understanding of the concept of metadiscourse and showed how its persuasive function was achieved through the integration of different metadiscursive resources. It also confirmed that metadiscourse is a productive concept that can be applied in a diverse range of fields and registers. Further, this study has extended the use of metadiscourse outside the limits of verbal language through examining visual features in advertising discourse where metadiscourse is used as a design feature that helps targeted readers understand and get the message of the ads. Hopefully, the results of this study will be a useful addition to the sparse literature on visual metadiscourse. As with any other studies, this research is limited but it yields interesting results that might provide useful insights and important implications for future research. The relatively small number of the analyzed advertisements and the visual model used are among the limitations of this study. Kumpf's (2000) model of visual metadiscourse provides a comprehensive taxonomy of various visual dimensions of a document, but the model somehow needs to be modified where "some categories are better defined than others and it must be admitted that the concept needs further refining" (González, 2005, p. 38).

While this study generally extends the scope of discourse analysis, particularly the concept of metadiscourse, there is still much room for further future research. Future studies could compare and contrast the use of textual and visual metadiscourse in advertisements across different languages and cultures. Interested scholars might also choose to investigate linguistics and visual metadiscourse features in other genres such as cartoons, academic posters, children scholarly books, websites, flyers, and infographics. Other studies could also investigate the use of textual and visual metadiscourse applying theories from semiotics and cognitive linguistics such as multimodality. In addition, more future research could move beyond metadiscourse and could, for instance, look at other aspects of the advertisements such as aural features like music and sound effects. Further future studies could focus on reader response and measure how advertisements could be interpreted differently by different readers. Finally, future studies could examine larger samples of advertising discourse to prove the generalizability of the present findings.

Declaration of competing interest

There is no any conflict of interest.

Appendix A

1. Dual in door, double convenience 2 times smarter organization solution to the things you use the most. (LG)
2. The journey of a thousand miles begins with a single step. Today I will…. (Nestle)
3. Eat a rainbow. Start with fitness today. (Nestle Fitness)
4. Believe it done. Just do it. (Nike)|
5. Preen and Perfect. (Ted Baker)
6. Small things big difference. (Home Box)
7. Stop. Shop. Save. Enjoy low prices on furniture, décor, and home essentials. (Home Box)
8. Solve it in a snap. (Ikea)
9. Do it when you get a job. Redo it when you get a promotion. (HomeCentre)
10. Versace Chain Creation. (Versace)
11. Brilliance two ways: Day. Night. (Swarovski)
12. 8 h sleep in a click. (YSL Beauty)
13. We love coco. We love colour. We love creativity. (Chanel Beauty)

14. It is better to be shocking than boring. Ultra shock. (Dior)
15. Diva's Dream: The grace of a goddess, the attitude of a Diva. (Bulgari)
16. Assembling the gold chain. Polishing the piece. Cutting the stone. Setting the stone. ALHambra the crafting of luck. (Van Cleef & Arpels)
17. Taking naps makes you smarter why more ZZZs could help with your IQ. (Sleep High)
18. Fake hurts real. Imitations are poorly made, giving you no protection. (Adidas)
19. We've all argued with the one we love but when we lighten the mood. Who will you make happy today? (La Vie Est belle)
20. Be larger than life. (Bulgari)
21. Pink your black Friday. (Lancôme)
22. We see both sides like frank (ocean –Land). (CHANEL)
23. You know me and you don't. (CHANEL)
24. SPE 20. Green tea. 48 HR Moisture. (Nivea)
25. Queen of curve, celebrate you shape and tag. (Newlook)
26. Impeccable, Dashing, provocative. Sleek as silver, fougere, D'Argent is a legend redux. (TOMFORD)
27. Escape urban pollution. (Lancôme)
28. Forget flowers (Mother's day is May 14) Get her a gift that requires less romance. (Coach)
29. Black opium Yves Saint Laurent. Are you ready to feel the call? (Yves Saint Laurent)
30. Elegant and Sensual. Bold and contemporary. (Bulgari)
31. This boy new. (Nike)
32. Bulgari man wood essence in black. (Bulgari)
33. Summer travel season is around the corner pack smarter with the emirates urban travelers collection. (Emirates)
34. Create your initial: jimmy choo man ice. (Jimmy Choo)
35. New absolute ultimate regeneration power for a visibly transformed skin. (Lancôme)
36. So-great Nano steam worlds 1st. (JNC)
37. Cartier antithesis (perfume is not a routine. It is invisible jewelry). (Cartier)
38. A dialogue of wardrobes transcending time. (Louis Vuitton)
39. Splash it. Punch it. Tag it. Engrave it. Mix it. (Tiffany & CO)
40. Do it all with passion or not at all. (Giorgio Armani Si)
41. First man. Very few can be the first to do something. To earn a place among the greatest moments. In all of history. To become a legend. A symbol of excellence. Very few can be part of something. That changed the world forever. And for the last half century, only one has made every second count. (Omega Speedmaster)
42. Family is everything. It is the most important thing in my life. True meaning of friendship, the true meaning unconditional love. Family is bein' there. Family who you love. (Polo Ralph Lauren).
43. Top Secrets (A celebration of empowered women, sure to attain their loftiest dream). (Yves Saint Laurent)
44. Goodbye Waterproof Makeup. Hello Breathing Skin. (Nivea Micellair Rosewater Moisturizes).
45. The new bag enticing and desirable. (ROBERTO CAVALLI)
46. Take only the best from the sun. (Cetaphilme)
47. 12% laugh out loud, 23% go hard or go home, 6% is it cheat day, 31% keeping resolutions, 11% boxing babe, 17% Hands free. 100% DKNY#London. (DKNY)
48. I always wanted more. I glow in a click. I switch style from day to night. I am my favorite stylist. (Swarovski #Remix the rules).
49. My name is. Inspired by Mademoiselle's first hand cream from 1927, I come from Gabrielle's hands straight to you. Shaped like a pebble I will be in the palm of your hand. Squeeze me for a dollop of hydrating delight. I promise I won't slip through your hands with my light-as-air texture. I am LA CRÈME MAIN. (CHANEL)
50. For The bold The bright and The beautiful. Exquisite balm to keep your lips cool. It's sheer colour that feels like serious pleasure. (Gucci).

References

Ädel, A., 2008. Metadiscourse across three varieties of English American, British and advanced-learner English. In: Connor, Ulla, Nagelhout, Edward, Rozycki, William (Eds.), Contrastive Rhetoric: Reaching to Intercultural Rhetoric. John Benjamins, Amsterdam/Philadelphia, pp. 45–62.
Barthes, R., 1994. Selected Works: Semiotics. Poetics. Progress, Moscow.
Bedijs, K., Christiane, Maaß, 2017. Manual of Romance Languages in the Media. de Gruyter Mouton, Berlin.
Bowen, T., Whithaus, C., 2013. Multimodal Literacies and Emerging Genres: Composition, Literacy, and Culture. University of Pittsburgh Press.
Bradac, J.J., Mulac, A., 1984. A molecular view of powerful and powerless speech styles: attributional consequences of specific language features and communicator intentions. Commun. Monogr. 51 (4), 307–319.
Brierley, S., 1995. The Advertising Handbook. Routledge, London.
Charney, D., Longo, B., 1994. The role of metadiscourse in persuasion. Tech. Commun. 41 (2), 348–352.
Cook, G., 1996. The Discourse of Advertising. Routledge, London.
Crismore, A., 1982. The Metadiscourse Component: Understanding Writing about Reading Directives (ERIC Document Reproduction Service No. ED 217374).
Crismore, A., 1989. Talking with Readers: Metadiscourse as Rhetorical Act. Peter Lang, New York.

Crismore, A., 2004. Pronouns and metadiscourse as interpersonal rhetorical devices in fundraising letters: a corpus linguistic analysis. In: Connor, U., Upton, T.A. (Eds.), Discourse in the Professions: Perspectives from Corpus Linguistics. John Benjamins, Amsterdam, pp. 307–330.
Dafouz-Milne, E., 2008. The pragmatic role of textual and interpersonal metadiscourse markers in the construction and attainment of persuasion: a cross-linguistic study of newspaper discourse. J. Pragmat. 40 (1), 95–113.
D'Angelo, L., 2016. Academic Posters – A Textual and Visual Metadiscourse Analysis. Bern, Peter Lang.
Fairclough, N., 1993. Critical discourse analysis and the marketization of public discourse: the universities. Discourse Soc. 4 (2), 133–168.
Fechine, L., Pontes, A.L., 2012. The visual metadiscourse of the inserts of an English dictionary. Calidoscopio 10 (3), 294–300.
Fu, X., 2012. The use of interactional metadiscourse in job postings. Discourse Stud. 14 (4), 399–417.
Fuertes-Olivera, P., Velasco-Sacristán, M., Arribas-Baño, A., Samaniego-Fernández, E., 2001. Persuasion and advertising English: metadiscourse in slogans and headlines. J. Pragmat. 33 (8), 1291–1307.
Gardner, R., Luchtenberg, S., 2000. Reference, image, text in German and Australian advertising posters. J. Pragmat. 32 (12), 1807–1821.
Geis, M.L., 1982. The Language of Television Advertising. Academic Press, New York.
Goddard, A., 2002. The Language of Advertising: Written Texts, second ed. Routledge, London.
González, R.A., 2005. Textual Metadiscourse in Commercial Websites, pp. 33–52. Iberica.
Gustafsson, M., 2018. Metadiscourse in Advertising : Persuasion in Online Advertisements of Makeup Brands. Linnaeus University, Department of Languages.
Hanafizadeh, P., Behboudi, M., 2012. Online Advertising and Promotion: Modern Technologies for Marketing. Business Science Reference, Hershey, PA.
Hyland, K., 2002a. Directives: argument and engagement in academic writing. Appl. Linguist. 23 (3), 215–239.
Hyland, K., 2002b. Authority and invisibility: authorial identity in academic writing. J. Pragmat. 34 (8), 1091–1112.
Hyland, K., 2005a. Metadiscourse: Exploring Interaction in Writing. Continuum, London, UK.
Hyland, K., 2005b. Stance and engagement: a model of interaction in academic discourse. Discourse Stud. 7, 173–192.
Hyland, K., 2013. Discourse Studies Reader: Essential Excerpts. Bloomsbury Academic, London.
Hyland, K., Tse, P., 2004. Metadiscourse in academic writing: a Reappraisal. Appl. Linguist. 25 (2), 156–177.
Hua, X., Mei, T., Hanjalic, A., 2011. Online Multimedia Advertising: Techniques and Technologies. IGI Global, Arizona.
Janoschka, A., 2004. Web Advertising: New Forms of Communication on the Internet. In: Pragmatics & beyond New Series, vol. 131. John Benjamins Publishing Company, Amsterdam & Philadelphia.
Kostelnick, C., Roberts, D., 1998. Designing Visual Language: Strategies for Professional Communicators. Allyn & Bacon, Needham Heights, MA.
Kress, G., 2010. Multimodality: A Social Semiotic Approach to Contemporary Communication. Routledge, London.
Kress, G., Van Leeuwen, T., 2006[1996]. Reading Images: the Grammar of Visual Design. Routledge, London.
Kuhi, D., Manijheh, M., 2014. Metadiscourse in newspaper genre: a cross-linguistic study of English and Persian editorials. Procedia-Soc. Behav. Sci. 98, 1046–1055.
Kumpf, E.P., 2000. Visual metadiscourse: designing in considerate text. Tech. Commun. Q. 9 (4), 401–424.
Le, E., 2004. Active participation within written argumentation: metadiscourse and editorialist's authority. J. Pragmat. 36, 687–714.
Ledin, P., Machin, D., 2020. Introduction to Multimodal Analysis, second ed. Bloomsbury Publishing, London.
Leech, G., 1969. A Linguistic Guide to English Poetry. Longman, London.
Leiss, W., Kline, S., Jhally, S., 1999. Social Communication in Advertising: Persons, Products & Images of Well-Being. Routledge, London.
Mancini, C., 2005. Cinematic Hypertext: Investigating a New Paradigm. IOS Press, Amsterdam.
Mauranen, A., 1993. Cultural Differences in Academic Rhetoric: A Textlinguistic Study. Peter Lang Publisher, Frankfurt am Main.
Miller, T., 1998. Visual persuasion: a comparison of visuals in academic texts and the popular press. Engl. Specif. Purp. 17 (1), 29–46.
Mühlhäusler, P., Harré, R., 1990. Pronouns and People: the Linguistic Construction of Social and Personal Identity. Basil Blackwell, Oxford.
Myers, G., 2000. Powerpoints: technology, lectures and changing genres. In: Trosborg, A. (Ed.), Analysing Professional Genres. John Benjamins, Amsterdam, pp. 177–189.
Noorian, M., Biria, R., 2010. Interpersonal metadiscourse in persuasive journalism: a study of texts by American and Iranian EFL columnists. J. Mod. Lang. 20, 64–79.
Povolná, R., 2020. Persuasion in technical discourse: the role of interpersonal metadiscourse markers in user manuals. In: Dontcheva-Navratilova, O., Adam, M., Povolná, R., Vogel, R. (Eds.), Persuasion in Specialised Discourses: Postdisciplinary Studies in Discourse. Springer International Publishing, Switzerland, pp. 229–262.
Stern, B., 1996. Textual analysis in advertising research: construction and deconstruction of meanings. J. Advert. 25 (3), 61–73.
Toye, R., 2013. Rhetoric: A Very Short Introduction. Oxford University Press, Oxford.
Tuten, T.L., 2008. Advertising 2.0: Social Media Marketing in a Web 2.0 World. Praeger, Westport, Conn.
Valero-Garcés, C., 1996. Contrastive ESP rhetoric: metatext in Spanish-English economics texts. Engl. Specif. Purp. 15 (4), 279–294.
Van Dijk, T.A., 1985. Discourse and Communication: New Approaches to the Analysis of Mass Media Discourse and Communication. W. de Gruyter, Berlin.
Vande Kopple, W.J., 1985. Some explanatory discourse on metadiscourse. Coll. Compos. Commun. 36, 63–94.
Vestergaard, T., Schroder, K., 1985. The Language of Advertising. Basil Blackwell Publisher Ltd, Oxford.
Williams, J.M., 1977. Style: Ten Lessons in Clarity and Grace, fifth ed. Longman, New York.
Yingfang, W., 2007. Analysis of presupposition and its function in advertisement. Can. Soc. Sci. 3, 55–60.
Young, L., Fitzgerald, B., 2006. The Power of Language: How Discourse Influences Society. Equinox, London.

Dr. Al-Subhi is a graduate of University College Cork, Saudi assistant professor. She is a PhD holder in Applied Linguistics (2017). She has an MA in Applied Linguistics from Umm Al-Qura University (2009) with first class honors. She has also received another master's degree from University College Cork with first class honors (2013). She has participated in international conferences in Italy, Spain, and Cyprus. Her research interests lie in the areas of language and gender, discourse analysis, media research, and cross-cultural studies.